

There is not much theory as to how to do this bracketing. Obviously you want to step downhill. But how far? We like to take larger and larger steps, starting with some (wild?) initial guess and then increasing the stepsize at each step either by a constant factor, or else by the result of a parabolic extrapolation of the preceding points that is designed to take us to the extrapolated turning point. It doesn't much matter if the steps get big. After all, we are stepping downhill, so we already have the left and middle points of the bracketing triplet. We just need to take a big enough step to stop the downhill trend and get a high third point.

Here is our standard routine, the function `bracket`. It appears in the structure `Bracketmethod` that serves as the base class for all the one-dimensional minimization methods we give in this chapter.

`struct Bracketmethod {`

`mins.h`

Base class for one-dimensional minimization routines. Provides a routine to bracket a minimum and several utility functions.

`Doub ax,bx,cx,fa,fb,fc;`
`template <class T>`

`void bracket(const Doub a, const Doub b, T &func)`

Given a function or functor `func`, and given distinct initial points `ax` and `bx`, this routine searches in the downhill direction (defined by the function as evaluated at the initial points) and returns new points `ax`, `bx`, `cx` that bracket a minimum of the function. Also returned are the function values at the three points, `fa`, `fb`, and `fc`.

`{`

`const Doub GOLD=1.618034, GLIMIT=100.0, TINY=1.0e-20;`

Here `GOLD` is the default ratio by which successive intervals are magnified and `GLIMIT` is the maximum magnification allowed for a parabolic-fit step.

`ax=a; bx=b;`

`Doub fu;`

`fa=func(ax);`

`fb=func(bx);`

`if (fb > fa) {`

`SWAP(ax,bx);`

`SWAP(fb,fa);`

`}`

Switch roles of *a* and *b* so that we can go downhill in the direction from *a* to *b*.

`cx=bx+GOLD*(bx-ax);`

First guess for *c*.

`fc=func(cx);`

`while (fb > fc) {`

Keep returning here until we bracket.

`Doub r=(bx-ax)*(fb-fc);`

Compute *u* by parabolic extrapolation from

`Doub q=(bx-cx)*(fb-fa);`

a, *b*, *c*. *TINY* is used to prevent any possible

`Doub u=bx-((bx-cx)*q-(bx-ax)*r)/`
`(2.0*SIGN(MAX(abs(q-r),TINY),q-r));`

division by zero.

`Doub ulim=bx+GLIMIT*(cx-bx);`

We won't go farther than this. Test various possibilities:

`if ((bx-u)*(u-cx) > 0.0) {`

Parabolic *u* is between *b* and *c*: try it.

`fu=func(u);`

`if (fu < fc) {`

Got a minimum between *b* and *c*.

`ax=bx;`

`bx=u;`

`fa=fb;`

`fb=fu;`

`return;`

`} else if (fu > fb) {`

Got a minimum between *a* and *u*.

`cx=u;`

`fc=fu;`

`return;`

`}`

`u=cx+GOLD*(cx-bx);`

Parabolic fit was no use. Use default magnification.

`fu=func(u);`

`} else if ((cx-u)*(u-ulim) > 0.0) {`

Parabolic fit is between *c* and

`fu=func(u);`

its allowed limit.

```

        if (fu < fc) {
            shft3(bx,cx,u,u+GOLD*(u-cx));
            shft3(fb,fc,fu,func(u));
        }
    } else if ((u-ulim)*(ulim-cx) >= 0.0) { Limit parabolic  $u$  to maximum
        u=ulim;                                allowed value.
        fu=func(u);
    } else { Reject parabolic  $u$ , use default magnifica-
        u=cx+GOLD*(cx-bx);                    tion.
        fu=func(u);
    }
    shft3(ax,bx,cx,u);                        Eliminate oldest point and continue.
    shft3(fa,fb,fc,fu);
}
}
inline void shft2(Doub &a, Doub &b, const Doub c)
Utility function used in this structure or others derived from it.
{
    a=b;
    b=c;
}
inline void shft3(Doub &a, Doub &b, Doub &c, const Doub d)
{
    a=b;
    b=c;
    c=d;
}
inline void mov3(Doub &a, Doub &b, Doub &c, const Doub d, const Doub e,
const Doub f)
{
    a=d; b=e; c=f;
}
};

```

(Because of the housekeeping involved in moving around three or four points and their function values, the above program ends up looking deceptively formidable. That is true of several other programs in this chapter as well. The underlying ideas, however, are quite simple.)

10.2 Golden Section Search in One Dimension

Recall how the bisection method finds roots of functions in one dimension (§9.1): The root is supposed to have been bracketed in an interval (a, b) . One then evaluates the function at an intermediate point x and obtains a new, smaller bracketing interval, either (a, x) or (x, b) . The process continues until the bracketing interval is acceptably small. It is optimal to choose x to be the midpoint of (a, b) so that the decrease in the interval length is maximized when the function is as uncooperative as it can be, i.e., when the luck of the draw forces you to take the bigger bisected segment.

There is a precise, though slightly subtle, translation of these considerations to the minimization problem. The analog of bisection is to choose a new point x , either between a and b or between b and c . Suppose, to be specific, that we make the latter choice. Then we evaluate $f(x)$. If $f(b) < f(x)$, then the new bracketing triplet of points is (a, b, x) ; contrariwise, if $f(b) > f(x)$, then the new bracketing triplet

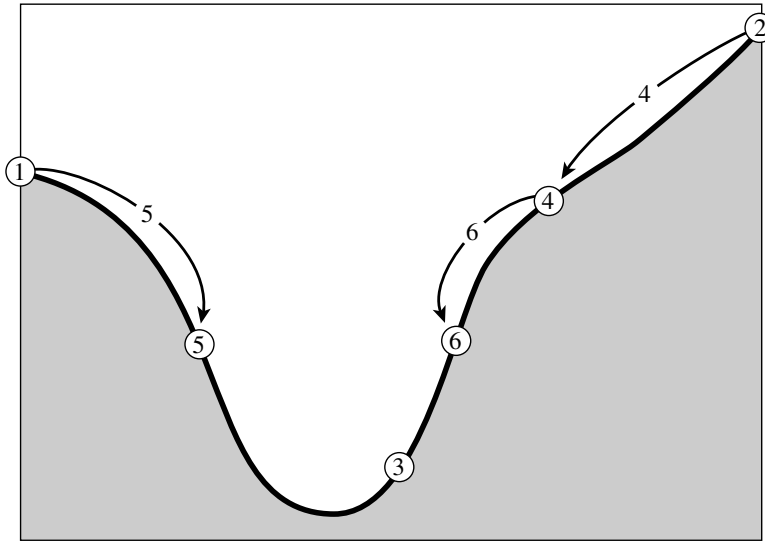


Figure 10.2.1. Successive bracketing of a minimum. The minimum is originally bracketed by points 1,3,2. The function is evaluated at 4, which replaces 2; then at 5, which replaces 1; then at 6, which replaces 4. The rule at each stage is to keep a center point that is lower than the two outside points. After the steps shown, the minimum is bracketed by points 5,3,6.

is (b, x, c) . In all cases, the middle point of the new triplet is the abscissa whose ordinate is the best minimum achieved so far; see Figure 10.2.1. We continue the process of bracketing until the distance between the two outer points of the triplet is tolerably small.

How small is “tolerably” small? For a minimum located at a value b , you might naively think that you will be able to bracket it in as small a range as $(1 - \epsilon)b < b < (1 + \epsilon)b$, where ϵ is your computer’s floating-point precision, a number like 10^{-7} (for `float`) or 2×10^{-16} (for `double`). Not so! In general, the shape of your function $f(x)$ near b will be given by Taylor’s theorem,

$$f(x) \approx f(b) + \frac{1}{2}f''(b)(x - b)^2 \quad (10.2.1)$$

The second term will be negligible compared to the first (that is, will be a factor ϵ smaller and will act just like zero when added to it) whenever

$$|x - b| < \sqrt{\epsilon}|b| \sqrt{\frac{2|f(b)|}{b^2 f''(b)}} \quad (10.2.2)$$

The reason for writing the right-hand side in this way is that, for most functions, the final square root is a number of order unity. Therefore, as a rule of thumb, it is hopeless to ask for a bracketing interval of width less than $\sqrt{\epsilon}$ times its central value, a fractional width of only about 10^{-4} (single precision) or 10^{-8} (double precision). Knowing this inescapable fact will save you a lot of useless bisections!

The minimum-finding routines of this chapter will often call for a user-supplied argument `tol`, and return with an abscissa whose fractional precision is about $\pm \text{tol}$ (bracketing interval of fractional size about $2 \times \text{tol}$). Unless you have a better estimate for the right-hand side of equation (10.2.2), you should set `tol` equal to (or

not much less than) the square root of your machine's floating-point precision, since smaller values will gain you nothing.

It remains to decide on a strategy for choosing the new point x , given (a, b, c) . Suppose that b is a fraction w of the way between a and c , i.e.,

$$\frac{b-a}{c-a} = w \quad \frac{c-b}{c-a} = 1-w \quad (10.2.3)$$

Also suppose that our next trial point x is an additional fraction z beyond b ,

$$\frac{x-b}{c-a} = z \quad (10.2.4)$$

Then the next bracketing segment will either be of length $w+z$ relative to the current one, or else of length $1-w$. If we want to minimize the worst case possibility, then we will choose z to make these equal, namely

$$z = 1-2w \quad (10.2.5)$$

We see at once that the new point is the symmetric point to b in the original interval, namely with $|b-a|$ equal to $|x-c|$. This implies that the point x lies in the larger of the two segments (z is positive only if $w < 1/2$).

But where in the larger segment? Where did the value of w itself come from? Presumably from the previous stage of applying our same strategy. Therefore, if z is chosen to be optimal, then so was w before it. This *scale similarity* implies that x should be the same fraction of the way from b to c (if that is the bigger segment) as was b from a to c , in other words,

$$\frac{z}{1-w} = w \quad (10.2.6)$$

Equations (10.2.5) and (10.2.6) give the quadratic equation

$$w^2 - 3w + 1 = 0 \quad \text{yielding} \quad w = \frac{3-\sqrt{5}}{2} \approx 0.38197 \quad (10.2.7)$$

In other words, the optimal bracketing interval (a, b, c) has its middle point b a fractional distance 0.38197 from one end (say a), and 0.61803 from the other end (say b). These fractions are those of the so-called *golden mean* or *golden section*, whose supposedly aesthetic properties hark back to the ancient Pythagoreans. This optimal method of function minimization, the analog of the bisection method for finding zeros, is thus called the *golden section search*, which can be summarized as follows:

Given, at each stage, a bracketing triplet of points, the next point to be tried is that which is a fraction 0.38197 into the larger of the two intervals (measuring from the central point of the triplet). If you start out with a bracketing triplet whose segments are not in the golden ratios, the procedure of choosing successive points at the golden mean point of the larger segment will quickly converge you to the proper self-replicating ratios.

The golden section search guarantees that each new function evaluation will (after self-replicating ratios have been achieved) bracket the minimum to an interval just 0.61803 times the size of the preceding interval. This is comparable to, but not

quite as good as, the 0.50000 that holds when finding roots by bisection. Note that the convergence is *linear* (in the language of Chapter 9), meaning that successive significant figures are won linearly with additional function evaluations. In the next section we will give a superlinear method, in which the rate at which successive significant figures are liberated increases with each successive function evaluation.

To use the golden section search, you need statements like the following:

```
Golden golden;
golden.bracket(a,b,func);
xmin=golden.minimize(func);
```

The value of the function at the minimum is available in `golden.fmin`. If you want to specify a function tolerance different from the default value of $3.0\text{e-}8$, simply override the default value in the constructor:

```
tol = ...
Golden golden(tol);
```

If you want to use a specified bracket as the initial condition, omit the call to `bracket` and set the bracket explicitly:

```
golden.ax = ...; golden.bx = ...; golden.cx = ...;
```

Here is the routine:

```
struct Golden : Bracketmethod {                               mins.h
Golden section search for minimum.
    Doub xmin,fmin;
    const Doub tol;
    Golden(const Doub toll=3.0e-8) : tol(toll) {}
    template <class T>
    Doub minimize(T &func)
    Given a function or functor f, and given a bracketing triplet of abscissas ax, bx, cx (such
    that bx is between ax and cx, and f(bx) is less than both f(ax) and f(cx)), this routine
    performs a golden section search for the minimum, isolating it to a fractional precision of
    about tol. The abscissa of the minimum is returned as xmin, and the function value at
    the minimum is returned as min, the returned function value.
    {
        const Doub R=0.61803399,C=1.0-R;    The golden ratios.
        Doub x1,x2;
        Doub x0=ax;                        At any given time we will keep track of four
        Doub x3=cx;                        points, x0,x1,x2,x3.
        if (abs(cx-bx) > abs(bx-ax)) {      Make x0 to x1 the smaller segment,
            x1=bx;                          and fill in the new point to be tried.
            x2=bx+C*(cx-bx);
        } else {
            x2=bx;
            x1=bx-C*(bx-ax);
        }
        Doub f1=func(x1);                  The initial function evaluations. Note that
        Doub f2=func(x2);                  we never need to evaluate the function
        while (abs(x3-x0) > tol*(abs(x1)+abs(x2))) { at the original endpoints.
            if (f2 < f1) {                   One possible outcome,
                shft3(x0,x1,x2,R*x2+C*x3); its housekeeping,
                shft2(f1,f2,func(x2));      and a new function evaluation.
            } else {                       The other outcome,
                shft3(x3,x2,x1,R*x1+C*x0); and its new function evaluation.
                shft2(f2,f1,func(x1));
            }
        }
        Back to see if we are done.
        if (f1 < f2) {                     We are done. Output the best of the two
            xmin=x1;                       current values.
        }
```

```

        fmin=f1;
    } else {
        xmin=x2;
        fmin=f2;
    }
    return xmin;
}
};

```

10.3 Parabolic Interpolation and Brent's Method in One Dimension

We already tipped our hand about the desirability of parabolic interpolation in the bracket routine of §10.1, but it is now time to be more explicit. A golden section search is designed to handle, in effect, the worst possible case of function minimization, with the uncooperative minimum hunted down and cornered like a scared rabbit. But why assume the worst? If the function is nicely parabolic near to the minimum — surely the generic case for sufficiently smooth functions — then the parabola fitted through any three points ought to take us in a single leap to the minimum, or at least very near to it (see Figure 10.3.1). Since we want to find an abscissa rather than an ordinate, the procedure is technically called *inverse parabolic interpolation*.

The formula for the abscissa x that is the minimum of a parabola through three points $f(a)$, $f(b)$, and $f(c)$ is

$$x = b - \frac{1}{2} \frac{(b-a)^2[f(b) - f(c)] - (b-c)^2[f(b) - f(a)]}{(b-a)[f(b) - f(c)] - (b-c)[f(b) - f(a)]} \quad (10.3.1)$$

as you can easily derive. This formula fails only if the three points are collinear, in which case the denominator is zero (the minimum of the parabola is infinitely far away). Note, however, that (10.3.1) is as happy jumping to a parabolic maximum as to a minimum. No minimization scheme that depends solely on (10.3.1) is likely to succeed in practice.

The exacting task is to invent a scheme that relies on a sure-but-slow technique, like golden section search, when the function is not cooperative, but that switches over to (10.3.1) when the function allows. The task is nontrivial for several reasons, including these: (i) The housekeeping needed to avoid unnecessary function evaluations in switching between the two methods can be complicated. (ii) Careful attention must be given to the “endgame,” where the function is being evaluated very near to the roundoff limit of equation (10.2.2). (iii) The scheme for detecting a cooperative versus noncooperative function must be very robust.

Brent's method [1] is up to the task in all particulars. At any particular stage, it is keeping track of six function points (not necessarily all distinct), a , b , u , v , w and x , defined as follows: The minimum is bracketed between a and b ; x is the point with the very least function value found so far (or the most recent one in case of a tie); w is the point with the second least function value; v is the previous value of w ; and u is the point at which the function was evaluated most recently. Also appearing in the algorithm is the point x_m , the midpoint between a and b ; however, the function is not evaluated there.